

Counterparts

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Comments welcome

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Chapter 2

Arguments about A- and B-theories

2.3 Utterance truth

When the facts change, I change
my mind. What do you do, sir?

J.M. Keynes (*attrib.*)

Some philosophers are in the habit of applying the predicate ‘true’ to *utterances* (particular *events*). Clearly, those who talk this way need to posit some intimate connection between truth for utterances and truth for propositions. The following seems natural:

Truth Link: Necessarily, for any utterance u , u is true iff the proposition expressed by u is true.

Several philosophers have noticed that Truth Link leads to strange results if some utterances express non-eternal propositions. To derive these results, we need the following further premise:

Stability: Necessarily, if an utterance u expresses the proposition p , then it is *always* the case that u is an utterance and expresses p .

The strange results then emerge as follows. Suppose that I now produce an utterance u of the sentence ‘Obama is president’, which expresses the temporarily true proposition p , that Obama is president. By Stability, this event u will *always* be an utterance expressing p . But in that case, by Truth Link, u will turn into a *false utterance* as soon as p turns into a false proposition. Which is weird: we do not normally think of the truth status of utterances as continuing to change in tandem with changes in the world, long after

the utterance has taken place. Now that Bush is no longer president, my utterances in 2006 of 'Bush is president' have not become false utterances.

Stability goes along with a general picture of the ontology of events according to which they have many of their salient properties permanently, even when they are not happening. For example, there is a certain event that is a shooting of Kennedy by Oswald, and this event is a murder. That is how things are, and always will be, as regards the event in question: it is not merely a *former* murder as Gordon Brown is a former prime minister. Some A-theorists—most influentially Prior (1968a)—have thought that there is something deeply wrong with this conception of events. However, these philosophers have work to do, since the conception seems to be presupposed in much ordinary discourse about events. ('The shooting of Kennedy by Oswald is one of the twentieth century's most important murders'.) The worry about responses to the argument which lean on the Priorian rejection of the standard view of events (e.g. Percival 2002) is this: once one makes such a move, one comes under pressure to provide some system of paraphrases or charitable reinterpretation on which ordinary event-talk can be made somehow legitimate; and once this is done, it looks like the argument for the strange result will still work, provided that we employ that reinterpretation throughout. And the strangeness of the strange result does not seem to rest on any questionable picture of event-talk as metaphysically fundamental.

Still, I don't think the argument from utterance truth should give propositional temporalists anything serious to worry about. The reason is that, as far as I can see, the use of 'true' as a predicate of utterances is just a philosopher's invention (see Strawson 1950b). Ordinary 'true' is almost always a predicate of propositions. For example, when someone makes an utterance and I say 'That's true', 'that' seems to refer to the proposition asserted, not to the event of asserting it. (Cf. 'Planetary orbits are highly stable' —'That's true, but would have been false if gravity obeyed an inverse-cube instead of an inverse-square law, in which case life could never have come into existence, and there would have been no utterances.')

If 'true utterance' is ours to define as we see fit, it is no more than a curiosity that if we define it using Truth Link, and temporalism is true, we will have to say that utterances continue to change their truth values after they have taken place.

The present style of argument against temporalism is due in essence to Evans (1985). However, Evans uses 'correct utterance' in place of 'true utterance', so that the role of Truth Link is played instead by Correctness Link:

Correctness Link: Necessarily, for any utterance u , u is correct iff the proposition expressed by u is true.

This argument cannot be brushed aside in the same way as the argument from Truth Link. 'Correct' expresses some sort of normative status, and it does seem that the ordinary way of thinking of events commits us to thinking that they many of their important normative properties eternally. ('The murder of Kennedy is one of the most heinous acts in American history'.) It would indeed be absurd to think that my 2006 utterance of 'Bush is president' underwent a change in its normative status, from correct to incorrect, when Bush ceased to be president. But is there any reason for a temporalist to accept Correctness Link? In general, an event's important normative properties seem to depend on facts about what the entities involved in the event are like *when the event is happening*. This means that we have to think twice before embracing superficially attractive normative principles which do not take this fact explicitly into account, such as

Unfair Punishment: Necessarily, for any act of punishment a , a is unfair iff the target of a is morally innocent.

Suppose that John began life as a morally innocent child, grew up into a hardened criminal; was then subjected to a just punishment a ; and at the end of his life contracted dementia, forgets all of his past crimes, and became morally innocent again. We certainly should not think that a started out unfair, then became fair, then occurred, and then finally became unfair again!

Does this mean that we must simply reject Unfair Punishment? Perhaps not. It is arguable that Unfair Punishment admits two readings, one equivalent to (1) and one equivalent to (2):

- (1) Necessarily, for any time t , for any act of punishment a , a is unfair at t iff the target of a is morally innocent at t .
- (2) Necessarily, for any time t , for any act of punishment a , a is unfair at t iff the target of a is morally innocent at the time a is occurring.

(2) is not objectionable in the same way as (1). And even propositional temporalists have good reason to posit the kind of context-sensitivity in sentences like Unfair Punishment which might allow for a reading equivalent to (2). Consider (3):

- (3) Everyone is nervous.

In the right context, this can mean that everyone *who ever has a child* is nervous *shortly before the birth of their first child*. A properly flexible account of the context-sensitivity associated with linguistic tense should be able to allow for ‘is nervous’ in those utterances of (3) to mean something tantamount to ‘is nervous shortly before the birth of his or her first child’. And a semantic theory that can achieve this should have no trouble allowing ‘is morally innocent’ in Unfair Punishment to mean something like ‘is morally innocent at the time *a* is occurring’. Given this flexibility, we should also be able to generate a reading for Correctness Link equivalent to (4), which does not entail any objectionable results about changes in the normative status of any events:

- (4) Necessarily, for any utterance *u*, *u* is correct iff the proposition expressed by *u* is true at the time *u* is occurring.

Nevertheless, given the potential for confusion, we will do better to focus on unambiguous formulations like (4) rather than counting on our audience to resolve the ambiguity of Correctness Link appropriately.

Of course, the fact that (4) doesn’t lead to absurd results about changes in the normative status of events doesn’t mean that it is *true*. There are several delicate issues that would need to be addressed before we could endorse anything like (4) in full generality. For one thing, we may need to make an exception for non-literal utterances (e.g. instances of sarcasm and exaggeration), depending on how we decide to use the ideology of “expressing” in connection with such utterances. For another, if we are propositional temporalists we need to address the fact that some utterances go on for a while. Does the proposition expressed have to be true throughout the interval when the utterance is taking place in order for the speaker to escape normative criticism? It is unclear how to think about this. Suppose I can see that my house will soon be engulfed by rising floodwaters, and begin sending a smoke signal which means ‘My house is underwater’, knowing that my house will in fact be underwater by the time the smoke has risen high enough for anyone else to see. Even early in the process, it seems acceptable for me to answer the question ‘What are you up to?’ with ‘I am telling everyone that my house is underwater’. To the response ‘Then you are lying, for as you can plainly see, your house is not underwater’, it seems sufficient for me to explain my reasons for being confident that my house

will be underwater by the time anyone will be in a position to interpret the message. It is hard to come up with norms that capture our reactions to this case, other than *don't induce other people to believe false things*.

2.4 Arguments from propositional anaphora

The word 'that' sometimes seems to serve as an anaphoric device for picking out propositions which were expressed by some previously uttered sentence. Consider the following example, due to Kripke:

- (5) Aristotle was fond of dogs. That could have been false.

It seems plausible that in an utterance of (5), the 'that' in the second sentence would denote the proposition that had been asserted, or expressed, by the first sentence.

Anaphoric devices like these have been used both to argue for propositional temporalism and contingentism, and to argue against them. In this section I will consider arguments of both kinds. I will begin with an argument for temporalism and contingentism.

The following conversations sound good:

- (6) a. It's raining. — That's true, but won't be true tomorrow. (Cappelen and Hawthorne 2009, p.)
 b. It's raining. — That's true, but wouldn't have been true if those southerly winds had kept up.

If the 'that's denote propositions, the truth of these sentences requires there to be propositions which are temporarily and contingently true. And it is hard to see what else the 'that's could denote, given our conception of propositions as the primary bearers of truth.¹

As Cappelen and Hawthorne (2009) point out, most temporalists and contingentists will want to be quite wary of relying this argument. For parallel arguments can be given for the existence of propositions whose truth varies across space:

- (7) It's raining. — That's true, but isn't true where Sally is

¹Note that it is not crucial to these arguments that the relevant uses of 'that' denote the very propositions that were semantically expressed by the previous sentences; it is enough that they should denote some propositions or other, perhaps related in some subtler way to the preceding utterances.

and between people

- (8) Movies like this always make me fall asleep. — That's true, but isn't true for everyone.

Even friends of relativism should, I think, hesitate before endorsing these arguments. But what is wrong with them?

Let me make a tentative suggestion. Consider the following discourses.

- (9) a. I drove a Honda Accord for many years. — I used to drive that, but now I drive a Camry.
 b. I drove my mother's car for many years. — I only drove that for a few months after I got my license, then I got my own car.
 c. Fred had to replace the piece of plastic connecting the screen of his laptop to the keyboard. — I had to replace that too.
 d. I found the first ten minutes of the interview tough going. — Funny, in my interview, that was the best part.
 e. The last speaker of the day is a philosopher of language. — On every other day, that speaker has been a metaphysician.

In (9a), 'that' is plausibly taken to a certain *kind* of car, *the Honda Accord*. We do seem, in some sense, to drive *kinds of car*, as witness 'I drove that kind of car for many years'. It is plausible that insofar as 'drive' expresses a relation people sometimes stand in to *kinds*, the relation in question is to be understood in terms of a more basic driving relation that people only ever stand in to individual cars. One counts as driving a kind of car exactly when one drives an instance of that kind; and similarly for many other transitive verbs.

Given this treatment of (9a), a similar account of (9b)–(9e) is appealing. The difference these sentences present is that the relevant "kinds" have a certain additional relativity that distinguishes them from kinds like *the Honda Accord*. In (9b), for instance, the kind is something we might label *one's mother's car*: individuals count as instances of this kind or not only relative to something, in this case a person. A person *x* counts as driving (crashing, washing...) that kind just when *x* drives (crashes, washes...) the individual that is an instance of the kind relative to them: the car that belongs to their mother. As regards one-place predicates, one thing we can do is to apply them to the kind with an appropriate modifier that tells us which instance of the kind to look at. For example, the kind *last speaker of*

the day counts as ‘a metaphysician on day *d*’ iff the individual speaker that is the instance of the kind relative to *d* is a metaphysician *simpliciter*.

If we can admit kinds of physical objects that behave like this, then perhaps we can also admit corresponding kinds of *propositions*. Compare:

- (10) a. I believed that my mother was the nicest mother in the world. — I believed that too, and it was true!
- b. Fred figured out that his illness was due to a virus. — I believed that too, but in my case it turned out to be false.

The thought is that just as one can, in a derivative way, drive a kind like *one’s mother’s car*, in virtue of driving an individual car to which one is appropriately related, one can, similarly, believe a kind like *the proposition that one’s mother is the nicest mother in the world*, in virtue of believing an individual proposition to which one is appropriately related. And we can speak of that kind of proposition as true “in so-and-so’s case”, or “for so-and-so”, when the individual proposition they are related to in the appropriate way is true *simpliciter*.

Let us turn next to arguments for propositional eternalism or necessitism which appeal to facts about propositional anaphora. Consider an example of Mark Richard’s:

[S]uppose that at midnight, Mary utters the sentence ‘Clinton is president’, and at dawn, she utters the sentence ‘[I was wrong,] Clinton was not president at midnight’. At dawn, we can report to Clinton,

- (11) At midnight, Mary said that you were president, but now she denies it/that/what she said at midnight. (Richard 2003, p. 38, example renumbered)

Let us focus on the second version of (11), using ‘that’. Richard is surely right that this sentence has a true reading (although it also seems to admit a false reading). The obvious account of (11) is that ‘that you were president’ stands for a proposition, which is also referred to by the anaphoric ‘that’. On the true reading of the sentence, the proposition designated cannot be a temporally variable proposition which is true exactly while Clinton is president, since it is clear that Mary’s speech at dawn does not involve denying a proposition with that temporal profile. Eternalists have an obvious strategy

for explaining the true reading of (11): they can take the proposition referred to to be one which is eternally true if Clinton is president at midnight, and eternally false if it isn't. (The false reading of (11) is, of course, more challenging for eternalists to explain.)

These observations can be put together to yield an argument for propositional eternalism:

- P1 We spoke truly and literally in uttering (11).
- P2 If we spoke truly and literally in uttering (11), there is a proposition that Mary asserted at midnight and denied at dawn.
- P3 If propositional temporalism is true, then at midnight Mary asserted a proposition that is true exactly when Clinton is president.
- P4 Mary did not, at dawn, deny any proposition that is true exactly when Clinton is president.
- P5 Mary asserted only one proposition at midnight.

Together, these premises entail that propositional temporalism is not true.

Are there analogous arguments against propositional contingentism? Schaffer (2012) attempts to construct such an argument, and claims that provides just as much support to propositional necessitarianism as Richard's argument provides to propositional eternalism. In Schaffer's example, Mary is a Republican, but if Gore had won the 2000 election, his policies would have been extremely successful, leading Mary to reconsider her political views, and eventually to utter the sentence 'America chose wisely in 2000' at a certain time t . In actuality, Mary remains a Republican, and at t she utters the sentence 'If Gore had won the 2000 election, America would have chosen foolishly in 2000'. According to Schaffer, there is as much reason to think that we could speak truly and literally in uttering (12) in this case as there is to think that we could speak truly and literally in uttering (11) in Richard's case:

- (12) If Gore had won the election in 2000, Mary would have said at t that America chose wisely in 2000, but she actually denied that at t .

If we grant this, the rest of the argument can be filled in exactly as in the temporal case:

- (P1') We spoke truly and literally in uttering (12).

- (P2') If we spoke truly and literally in uttering (12), there is a proposition that Mary would have asserted at t if Gore had won the election in 2000 which she actually denied at t .
- (P3') If propositional contingentism is true, then if Gore had won, Mary would at t have asserted a proposition that is, necessarily, true if and only if America chose wisely in 2000.
- (P4') Mary did not at t deny any proposition that is, necessarily, true if and only if America chose wisely in 2000.
- (P5') If Gore had won, Mary would have asserted only one proposition at t .

These premises jointly entail that propositional contingentism is not true. However, *pace* Schaffer, this argument seems to me to be much weaker than Richard's argument for propositional eternalism, since (P1') seems far more tendentious than P1. From now on I will focus on the temporal version of the argument, although much of what I say will also be applicable to the modal version.

Which of P1–P5 should propositional temporalists reject? P1 and P4 are very hard to deny. P3 might be rejected by a propositional temporalist who thought that English-speakers never assert or bear other propositional attitudes towards non-eternal propositions; but as we have already seen in ??, this is a very implausible thing for a propositional temporalist to think, and I can't see any other principled grounds for denying P3 that would help with the argument.²

Denying P2 is a more interesting option for temporalists. One idea is to adapt the strategy I earlier suggested on behalf of eternalists, by taking the *that*-clause and the subsequent anaphoric pronoun to refer to a *relativised proposition-kind* rather than an individual proposition. The relevant proposition-kind K would be associated with a transient relation R_K between people, times and propositions, in such a way that one counts as asserting or denying K at t exactly when one asserts or denies some proposition p to which you bear R_K relative to t . It is certainly possible to recover the intended truth-conditions of (11) by cooking up an appropriate R_K . Mary counts as asserting K at midnight because she then bears R_K to the proposition she asserts at midnight (that Clinton is president); she counts as denying K at dawn because she then bears R_K to the proposition she denies

²***Extreme semantic plasticity would provide an unhelpful reason***

at dawn (that Clinton was not president at midnight). Notice that since our utterance of (11) would have been false (on its intended interpretation) if the sentence uttered by Mary at dawn had been 'Clinton is not president', Mary must no longer, at dawn, stand in R_K to the proposition that Clinton is president. There certainly are relations with this profile, although they are not especially intuitive or natural: for example, there is the relation that x stands in to P at t iff necessarily, P is true at t iff Clinton is president at midnight on the relevant date. The main problem with this proposal is one of overgeneration. If we are free to interpret 'that'-clauses as referring to proposition-kinds corresponding to just any old relation between people and propositions, then we can arrange for an attitude report to have pretty much any imaginable truth-condition; so the highly restricted range of interpretations we actually see becomes hard to explain. This objection bites much more strongly against the present invocation of proposition-kinds on behalf of the temporalist than against the previously-considered invocation of proposition-kinds on behalf of the eternalist. For the proposition-kinds the eternalist needed corresponded to rather natural, qualitative relations between people, times and eternal propositions, e.g. the relation that holds between x , t and P iff P is the proposition that it is raining at t in the place where x is. By contrast, the relations with the profile that would be needed to recover the desired truth-conditions for (11) seem quite *ad hoc* and unnatural. And I am not aware of any other ways of denying P2 without simply giving up on the role of propositions as objects of the attitudes.

The most promising strategy for the propositional temporalist, I think—and here I am in agreement with Richard—is to deny P5. The idea is that Mary's speech at midnight is *both* an assertion of the non-eternal proposition that Clinton is president *and* an assertion of the eternal proposition that Clinton is president at midnight. Since Mary's speech is not in any way atypical, this makes sense only if, in general, assertions of non-eternal propositions are also assertions of corresponding eternal propositions. And if one says this about assertion, one will plausibly be led to say analogous things about many other propositional attitudes: for example, that anyone who believes a non-eternal proposition P at a certain instant t also believes at t the eternal proposition that P is true at t (or something necessarily equivalent to it).

The idea that it is typical for acts of assertion to involve the assertion of more than one proposition has been defended recently by several different authors, on a wide variety of grounds (**cites). The particular form of 'speech act pluralism' needed for the present application is an especially

innocuous and familiar one. It has often been noticed that people who make speeches involving definite descriptions can often be correctly characterised using *de re* speech reports: for example, if John says 'The person who wrote this deserves to get a First', a report like 'There is a student that John said deserves a first' will be acceptable in many contexts. (Not just any description will license a *de re* report; and the limits on which descriptions are acceptable seem highly context-sensitive.) If a temporalist thinks of the non-eternal proposition asserted by Mary at midnight as a descriptive proposition to the effect that Clinton is president at whichever time is present, the idea that by virtue of asserting this Mary will also count as having asserted the eternal proposition that Clinton is president at *t* (for each instant *t* that is present during her speech) can be seen as just another instance of the familiar pattern whereby assertions of descriptive propositions count as assertions of corresponding *de re* propositions.

To save (11) in this way, the propositional temporalist will need to take the 'that'-clause to refer to an eternal proposition. So, in general, a report of the form 'At *t*, *x* said that *P*' must admit an interpretation on which 'that *P*' contributes an eternal proposition about how things stand at *t*. But propositional temporalists certainly should think that such reports also admit a reading on which 'that *P*' contributes a changeable proposition. This is the obvious way for the temporalist to explain the *other* salient reading of (11), on which it is true in a circumstance where Mary merely thinks that Clinton ceased to be president between midnight and dawn and didn't (intuitively speaking) change her mind about anything.³

(One choice point for propositional temporalists who deny P5 is what to say about the propositions *semantically expressed* by simple present-tense sentences. The default view is to say that 'Clinton is president' unambiguously semantically expresses a single non-eternal proposition. This is consistent with the claim that people who utter the sentence thereby more than one proposition, including at least one eternal proposition. Analogously, the fact that one could assert that Obama is cautious by uttering 'The president of the United States is cautious' does not show that that sentence is context-sensitive or ambiguous. Those who think that it is common to assert multiple propositions in uttering a sentence should also think that it is common to assert propositions that are not semantically expressed (relative to any context) by the sentence one utters. However, there is a better

³See *** above for an argument that if there are temporal propositions, they can be designated by 'that' clauses.

reason why temporalists might reject the default view. As we have seen, the present strategy requires temporalists to think that (11) has an interpretation on which ‘that you were president’ designates an eternal proposition as well as an interpretation on which it designates a changeable proposition. A systematic compositional semantics must somehow explain how this multiplicity of admissible interpretations arises; and it is quite possible that the best explanation of this will predict that simple sentences like ‘Clinton is president’ admit an analogous multiplicity of interpretations. Saying this would not have to commit one to the view that there are two different kinds of literal utterances of ‘Clinton is president’, namely those that semantically express eternal propositions and those that semantically express changeable propositions: one could, instead, treat *semantically expressing* as a one-many relation like *asserting*, and claim that normal utterances of ‘Clinton is president’ are not only assertions of both kinds of propositions, but also semantically express both kinds of propositions.)

Having seen how propositional temporalists can resist Richard’s argument from propositional anaphora, let us turn to a different argument for propositional eternalism, also due to Richard, which turns on propositional quantification. For example, the central argument in Richard 1981 is based on the judgment that the following argument is not valid:

- (13) Mary believed that Nixon was president.
- (14) Mary still believes everything she once believed.
- (15) So, Mary believes that Nixon is president.

This claim of invalidity is justified in turn by the judgment that both premises are true and the conclusion false in a scenario where Mary is aware of Nixon’s resignation and hasn’t, intuitively speaking, changed her mind about anything at all since the Nixon administration. This is problematic for the temporalist. If temporalism is true and (13) is true, then the non-eternal proposition that Nixon is president is something that Mary once believed (back when it was true), in which case the only way (14) could be true would be for her to still believe this proposition despite the fact that it is now false.

In a similar vein, Richard (2003) imagines a case where at midnight A says ‘Smith is awake and talking about tense’, and the following morning, in the middle of Smith’s talk about tense, B whispers to A,

- (16) I don’t believe anything you said last night about Smith.

The judgment is that B says something true in uttering (16) even though it is perfectly obvious to B that Smith is awake and giving a talk about tense *at the time of B's speech*.

The claims that we bear propositional attitude and speech act relations to eternal propositions whenever we bear them to changeable ones, and that past tense speech and act reports have readings on which they report such relations, do not suffice all by itself to defuse these arguments. In the Mary case, the former claim makes it plausible that in the imagined circumstances, *one* of the propositions that Mary believed at some past time *t* is the eternal proposition that Nixon is president at *t*, while the latter claim tells us that (13) has a reading on which it reports this fact. If we understand (13) in this way the argument will indeed be invalid. Nevertheless, it would be very implausible for a temporalist to deny that in the imagined scenario, the non-eternal proposition that Nixon is president is *also* something that Mary once believed: denying this would seem to require the radical view (which I argued against in ??) that although there are non-eternal propositions people are incapable of taking any attitudes towards them. Moreover, it is clear that Mary does not currently believe this non-eternal proposition. So we still have the problem that propositional temporalism seems to predict that (14) is false in the imagined scenario. Similarly, it would be implausible for the temporalist to deny that the non-eternal proposition that Smith is awake and talking about tense was both asserted by A at midnight and believed by B in the morning (whatever eternal propositions might have been asserted and believed in addition), in which case (16) seems to be false.

Nevertheless, there is a straightforward way for temporalists to respond to the quantificational arguments by appealing to the familiar phenomenon of contextual quantifier domain restriction. Specifically: temporalists can claim that the quantifiers in the imagined utterances of (14) and (16) are contextually restricted to eternal propositions. Since it is uncontroversially true that Mary still believes every eternal proposition she once believed and that B doesn't in the morning believe any eternal proposition that Smith asserted the previous night, this gets the desired result that the sentences express truths relative to the context of utterance. Note however that for this move to make sensible predictions about the truth-conditions of the propositions expressed by these sentences in the context of utterance, it needs to be combined with a picture whereby it is, at least, very common for people who believe or assert non-eternal propositions to simultaneously believe or assert corresponding eternal propositions. For example, we want

the proposition asserted by B in uttering (16) to be one that would have been false in a scenario where A uttered the sentence 'Smith is asleep' at midnight and where B believed, in the morning, that Smith had been asleep at midnight. To account for this while positing a domain restriction to eternal propositions, we would need to say that if Smith had uttered 'Smith is asleep' at midnight, then one of the propositions he would have asserted would have been an eternal proposition to the effect that Smith is asleep at that time.

Contextual quantifier domain restriction is optional. It should be possible to interpret (14) and (16) in such a way that all propositions whatsoever are in the domain of quantification. Thus Richard could block this response by insisting that (14) and (16) have *no* readings under which they are false in the imagined cases. But it is far from clear that this is correct. Indeed it is clearly incorrect in the Mary case: one can hear (14) as making a very strong and improbable claim whose truth *would* require Mary to believe that Nixon is still president. In the Smith case the possibility of such a reading is less obvious; but I think I can hear a true reading of 'There's something you said last night about Smith that I believe is true *now*', and having heard this, I think it's possible to access a (far-fetched) reading of (16) on which it is false. It's not *obvious* that these are normal, literal readings in which non-eternal propositions are in the domain of quantification (propositional eternalists could, for example, respond to them by invoking proposition-kinds in the manner discussed above). But it is also not obvious that they aren't. So unless we can think of some other way to put the temporalist's postulated contextual domain restriction to the test, the dialectical situation seems to be a standoff.